

Democracy in the Americas

STOPPING THE PENDULUM

Edited by
ROBERT A. PASTOR

H&M HOLMES
& MEIER

New York London

Appendix

CASE STUDIES
OF DEMOCRATIZATION

Nine Cases of the Breakdown of Democracy

EDWARD GIBSON

(1) VENEZUELA (1945-1948): The <i>Trienio</i>	159
(2) COLOMBIA (1949): Elite Conflict and Societal Violence	164
(3) GUATEMALA (1954): Regime Breakdown and Foreign Intervention	169
(4) ARGENTINA (1955-1966): A Case of Aborted Legitimacy	173
(5) BRAZIL (1964): The Failure of Popular Mobilization	178
(6) CHILE (1973): Fragmentation of the Political Center	183
(7) URUGUAY (1973): Democratic Abdication and the Militarization of Politics	189
(8) ARGENTINA (1976): The Limits of Charismatic Authority	194
(9) GRENADA (1979): The Ouster of Personalistic Rule	199

VENEZUELA, 1945-1948: The *Trienio*

Chronology of Key Events

18 OCTOBER 1945: Coup deposes government of President Isaías Medina Angarita. A *junta* led by Provisional President Rómulo Betancourt, three other Acción Democrática leaders, and two military officers takes office. Major political and economic reforms are enacted.

JANUARY 1946: The Christian Democratic party, Comité de Organización

Política Electoral Independiente (COPEI) is established and becomes the most important party in opposition to Acción Democrática.

15 MARCH 1946: Electoral reform law is passed granting universal suffrage.

14 DECEMBER 1947: Rómulo Gallegos, Acción Democrática presidential candidate, wins the presidency with 74 percent of the vote. Congressional elections are also held, giving Acción Democrática a 70 percent legislative majority.

24 NOVEMBER 1948: Military coup overthrows government of Rómulo Gallegos.

Introduction

The period between 1945 and 1948, known as the *trienio*, marked Venezuela's first experimentation with mass political democracy. As such, it provides a fascinating case study of the problems and potential pitfalls facing the founders of new democratic regimes. The abrupt termination by the military of Venezuela's tumultuous democratic experiment in November 1948 yielded powerful lessons for the inexperienced leaders of the regime—lessons that were applied by that leadership when it built one of Latin America's most stable democracies upon its return to power after 1958.

Politics during the *trienio* were characterized by an absence of trust between major contenders for power and by a lack of agreement on legitimate criteria for gaining power and for the resolution of conflict. In large part the lack of a framework for democratic cooperation between political groups can be traced to the actions of the party in power, Acción Democrática (AD). Possessing uncontested control over the political process, AD was in a unique position to create conditions for democratic cooperation between government and loyal opposition,¹ and to strengthen the democratic regime's fragile legitimacy within Venezuelan society. However, its actions in power destroyed the regime's legitimacy among non-AD sectors. Specifically, AD's socioeconomic policies alienated powerful interests in civil society whose support for democracy was tenuous at best. This was compounded by the alienation of non-AD political parties, through their exclusion from the policymaking process, the partisan implementation of government programs, the monopolization of the government bureaucracy, and the intolerance of dissent. While the coup that overthrew the AD government was carried out by the military high command, it enjoyed the widespread support of many non-AD sectors in civil and political society.

Acción Democrática in Power

Acción Democrática's rise to power in a military coup in October 1945 marked a radical change in the rules of the political game and the currencies of

political power in Venezuela. Conflicts over the regime's legitimacy were therefore probably inevitable. The new political system placed a premium on mass organization and electoral strength as criteria for political power. Of all organized groups in the country, only AD possessed these resources to any considerable extent. Thus, social and political groups that had felt secure under previous political regimes were suddenly unequipped to defend themselves or to seek political power under the new regime. When they perceived their interests to be threatened by the AD government, they readily sought alliances with disloyal forces seeking to overthrow the democratic regime.

The AD government's policies soon alienated traditional centers of power in Venezuela. The government attempted to enact an educational reform law that threatened the Catholic Church's preeminence in private education. This, combined with the public anticlericalism of many of AD's prominent supporters, galvanized opposition to the regime from the Catholic Church, and sparked one of the *trienio's* most bitter conflicts. The AD also put leaders of previous governments on trial for abuses and for their illegal enrichment while in office. This kind of action, perceived by many in political society to be a sign of government vindictiveness (exercising, as Juan Linz would put it, a "politics of resentment"), isolated AD from much of the traditional political establishment. AD's active support of trade unionism alienated powerful industrial interests, particularly in the oil industry. Its land reform program and support of rural unions threatened agrarian elites. The party's revolutionary rhetoric, its appeals for popular mobilization, and its constant electioneering also created insecurity among established interests and the military.

The alienation of conservative interests was possibly an inevitable feature of a government committed to broad political and economic reform. While undermining the regime's legitimacy among such interests, it need not necessarily have provided the basis for an authoritarian coup d'état. The regime enjoyed strong support from labor, the peasantry, and much of the middle class. Furthermore, the new regime should have counted on the support of non-AD political leaders who shared the same commitments to democratic rule as the AD. Most importantly, they shared a political stake in the preservation of civilian constitutional government. The loss of support within political society was to prove AD's most critical failing. This loss of support was caused by a number of factors.

As other case studies in this volume show, the exclusion of the opposition from the political process by a party in power is often a major factor in a democratic regime's loss of legitimacy. The overwhelming advantages possessed by AD in mass political organization during the *trienio* gave opposing parties little chance of capturing political power through electoral means. Their frustration was compounded by the fact that AD offered them little opportunity to share political power through such other avenues as legislative coalitions, senior government appointments, or systematic consultations on key policy decisions. In addition, the resulting detachment of non-AD parties from the government's fundamental socioeconomic reforms meant that, outside of AD, no political

groups were publicly committed to their implementation. This facilitated a convergence between disaffected party leaders and disloyal interests in opposition to the regime.

AD's extensive party network, which tied it closely at the local level to a variety of sectors, allowed it to adopt partisan criteria for the implementation of government programs. This greatly enhanced its electoral base, which grew as sectors adhered to the party in the hopes of benefiting from government resources. Yet it also undermined the government's legitimacy among competing electoral groups.

Juan Linz notes that one characteristic of new democracies is that governments and their supporters tend to "identify democracy with their own particular social and cultural policies." He further suggests that "on that basis, any opposition to those policies is perceived as antidemocratic action rather than as an effort to change the decisions of the temporary majority."² These observations accurately describe AD's relations with the rest of political society. Impressed by its huge electoral mandates, AD sought to singlehandedly reshape Venezuelan society. Instead of attempting to broaden support for the democratic regime, AD sought primarily to pursue programmatic goals and sectoral interests. It also responded bitterly to criticism, often questioning the democratic integrity of non-AD parties opposed to the government's policies. While the top leadership of AD often attempted to moderate the tone of the debate, it had little control over its rank and file.

In return, the opposition parties criticized the government in tones that with increasing stridency threw its legitimacy into question. Charges of government harassment, corruption, inefficiency, and ineffectiveness were the order of the day during the latter part of the *trienio*. Since the democratic regime was in its formative stages and was tightly controlled by AD, such criticisms were detrimental not only to the legitimacy of AD as a governing party, but to the democratic regime itself. In the final weeks of the *trienio*, opposition party leaders openly called for the ouster of the government. The military, dissatisfied with the AD government and fearful of divisions the political strife was causing within its own ranks, launched a successful and bloodless coup on 24 November 1948.

Conclusion

The democracy that entered into being between 1945 and 1948 did so on an extremely fragile base of legitimacy. The country had never before experienced democratic government. Few organized social or political groups possessed the skills or resources of mass organization necessary to contest power under the new regime. Furthermore, several important sectors, particularly those whose interests had been protected under previous regimes, had not relinquished their affinities for more authoritarian forms of rule.

Under these conditions a critical task for the democratic leadership was to

strengthen a minimum consensus among the opposition on the desirability of continued constitutional rule. This required the building of a diverse coalition that would integrate the semi-loyal opposition into the democratic process and counter the disloyal opposition bent on destroying the regime. However, AD's *partido único* strategy isolated it from potential allies in political and civil society, eliminated any stakes that non-AD groups might have possessed in the continuation of the constitutional regime, and helped crystallize a broad coalition that included virtually every non-AD sector in Venezuelan society.

A lesson the *trienio* provides to the leaders of fledgling democratic regimes is the illusory strength of electoral support as a legitimizing power resource when most other effective power resources lie in sectors that are at odds with the electoral majority. AD interpreted its huge electoral support as a mandate for partisan rule. Yet in a society where the acceptance of democratic norms was weak, such electoral majorities did little to give the government legitimacy among the excluded and threatened sectors that were able to overturn the government through military force.

Annotated Bibliography

Betancourt, Rómulo. *Venezuela, Política y Petróleo*. 2d. ed., Caracas: Editorial Senderos, 1967. This work provides an obviously partisan yet very detailed and revealing exposition of AD's program and objectives during the *trienio*. It also reviews Venezuelan politics during subsequent periods. Also published in English, as *Venezuela, Oil and Politics*, Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1979.

Burggraaf, Winfield J. *The Venezuelan Armed Forces in Politics, 1935-1959*. Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1972. A descriptive analysis of the role of the military in Venezuelan politics from the end of the Gómez dictatorship to the overthrow of the Pérez Jiménez government. This book provides one of the most thorough accounts in the literature of the military's role in the *trienio*, and of the process that led it to overthrow the AD government of Rómulo Gallegos.

Levine, Daniel H. *Conflict and Political Change in Venezuela*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1973. A study of the evolution of norms and institutions of democratic coexistence in Venezuela since 1936. The book focuses primarily on the successful process of democratic consolidation after 1959. However, it offers suggestive insights into the breakdown of democracy during the *trienio* and the ways in which the errors committed during the *trienio* shaped the successful consolidation in the 1960s. A shorter version of Levine's argument is presented in Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan, eds., *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Latin America*, Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978.

Martz, John D. *Acción Democrática: Evolution of a Modern Political Party in Venezuela*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1966. An excellent study of the role of *Acción Democrática* in shaping Venezuelan democracy. This work focuses on *Acción Democrática's* evolution as a political party, its program, doctrine, links to civil society, and on the dynamics of Venezuela's party system. Martz's study of Venezuelan party politics also provides the basis for more general insights into modern political parties in Latin America.

COLOMBIA, 1949: Elite Conflict and Societal Violence

Chronology of Key Events

1945: Reformist Liberal President Alfonso López Pumarejo resigns from the presidency in the midst of interparty strife and opposition to his rule from Conservatives and moderate Liberals. He is succeeded by an interim "National Union" coalition under Liberal President Alberto Lleras Camargo.

1946: Conservative candidate Mariano Ospina Pérez wins the presidential election. He forms a "National Union" coalition, with Liberal Party leaders in prominent cabinet positions. Interparty violence mounts in the countryside. Strikes and riots in urban areas also increase.

MARCH 1948: Citing a list of grievances for alleged Conservative persecution of Liberal Party members, the Liberals withdraw from the National Union coalition.

APRIL 1948: Liberal Party leader Eliézer Gaitán is assassinated by a lone gunman. His assassination sparks the *bogotazo*, a massive urban riot in the nation's capital.

APRIL 1948: A second National Unity coalition is formed under the Ospina government.

MAY 1949: Citing the government's failure to enact reforms and continued persecution of party members, the Liberal Party withdraws once again from the National Union coalition.

NOVEMBER 9, 1949: Following an effort by the Liberal-controlled Congress to impeach him, President Ospina closes Congress and declares a state of siege.

Introduction

In 1949 Colombia's democratic system was formally overturned and the country continued a slide toward fratricidal violence that would ultimately claim two hundred thousand lives. The origins of the democratic breakdown and the "*violencia*" that followed it lay in the interactive relationship between socioeconomic change and the unique features of the Colombian political system.

The profound socioeconomic changes brought on by development in the 1920s, 1930s, and 1940s put strains on a political system characterized by informal norms of consent, accommodation, and bipartisanship within an oligarchic political elite. These changes altered the balance of power between the dominant Liberal and Conservative parties in favor of the Liberal Party. The resulting Liberal attempts to forge a Liberal hegemony over the political system threatened the Conservative Party with permanent minority status.

It also violated an implicit and critical understanding in Colombia's political

system: that no party would be denied access by any other to power and to the spoils that accrued from control of the administrative apparatus of government. In Colombia, party affiliation and partisan access to administrative spoils had penetrated deeply into the country's political fabric. Interparty conflict was therefore felt at all levels of national life.

Ultimately, the hardening of partisanship and the rising level of political conflict overwhelmed a political system based on informal mechanisms of agreement between party elites. Those that frantically sought agreement in the final moments of Colombian democracy exercised little control either over their parties' rank and file or other members of the top party leadership. When President Ospina Pérez closed Congress and declared a state of siege in 1949, little disagreement existed within the political elite that all avenues of conciliation through the existing rules of the game had been exhausted.

The Erosion of Bipartisanship

The democracy that collapsed in 1949 had its roots in the Republican Union of 1909. Putting aside differences that had caused two large-scale civil wars in the nineteenth century, the Liberal and Conservative Parties united to overthrow the dictatorship of Rafael Reyes. They subsequently formed a coalition government and inaugurated a democratic regime tightly controlled by members of the two-party elite. This "oligarchic democracy" was predicated on a series of understandings between the Conservative and Liberal leaders. The most important of these was the bipartisan nature of the system. Not only would the system be dominated by the two parties, but power in essence would be shared between them, no matter which party controlled the executive branch of government. Thus, in what was known as *convivencia*, the party out of power was regularly granted a share of government portfolios by the party in power. Implicit in this arrangement was the idea that no party would become a permanently excluded minority. Another assumption was that party leaders exercised control over their parties' rank and file. This was an essential ingredient in the closed and informal system of interelite bargaining.

The erosion of the norms that held the system together first surfaced in the 1930s. Colombia was undergoing rapid economic development. With modernization, the role of the state and its importance in terms of power and patronage grew. Rural-urban migration accelerated and popular participation in political life increased. These changes favored the Liberal Party, whose historic strengths lay in the cities and the more modern sectors of Colombian society. Populism became a growing factor in Liberal Party politics, and labor unionism became a new power resource for elements within the party leadership. As a result, the ideological content of party rhetoric, muted in the past for the sake of *convivencia*, became intensified. The leadership and the constituencies of the Conservative Party found their stakes in the system increasingly threatened.

During the 1930s the Liberal Party sought to institutionalize its hegemony over the political system. In 1933 it won election victories that demonstrated clear Liberal majorities for the first time in the century. Claiming electoral

fraud, the Conservatives announced their abstention from future electoral competitions. Reformist Liberal governments instituted major electoral reforms that further strengthened the Liberal electoral position. As the Liberals consolidated their hegemony and their control of governmental institutions down to the municipal level, interparty conflict intensified. Violence in the countryside, as party followers struggled over local administrative spoils, also grew. As importantly, the framework of trust and conciliation between the members of the party elite, the mainstay of the oligarchic system's stability, was steadily eroding.

During the second presidency of reformist Liberal President Alfonso López Pumarejo (from 1942 to 1945) interelite strife reached crisis proportions. Leaders of both parties openly questioned the legitimacy of the political system. Conservative Party leader Laureano Gómez declared the need for a "revolution" against the Liberal-dominated regime. Populist Liberal leader Eliézer Gaitán attacked the corruption and inefficiency of the oligarchic political system. Following López's resignation, two attempts were made by moderate leaders to restore *convivencia*. The interim government of Alberto Lleras Camargo forged a "National Unity" coalition that endured until the 1946 presidential elections. Conservative President Mariano Ospina Pérez (who won the elections following an internal split in the Liberal Party) also formed such a coalition, assigning prominent cabinet positions to Liberal leaders.

However, interparty conflict intensified during the time of the Ospina government. As the Conservatives took charge of governmental institutions, violence flared up in the countryside. Liberal leader Gaitán's ambivalent posture toward labor strikes against the government, and his sporadic harassment of Liberal members of the National Union government, reinforced Conservative distrust of the Liberal leadership. Elite strife paralleled violence in the countryside. In March 1948, after presenting a list of grievances for alleged government-sanctioned persecutions of Liberal Party members, the Liberals withdrew from the coalition government.

An important element in the progressive breakdown of Colombian democracy was the factional and disorganized nature of the two dominant parties. Although party affiliations were strongly felt at all levels of society, party leaders in reality had little control over their diverse factions or over the actions of local party leaders. This contributed to the erosion of trust between party elites. Acts of violence carried out in the name of one party or the other strained relations between party leaders. Yet, for fear of losing vital partisan support, they were reluctant to condemn such actions. Similarly, moderates were torn by the conflicting imperatives of preserving the system through compromise and retaining the support of hard-line factional leaders in the party. This often explained the ambivalence of party leaders during critical stages of interparty negotiation.

The Breakdown

The final phase of the crisis of Colombian democracy came with the assassination of Liberal leader Eliézer Gaitán on 8 April 1948. His assassination

sparked what came to be known as the *bogotazo*, one of the largest urban riots in western history.

While the *bogotazo* helped to harden partisan antagonisms, it also awakened moderate party leaders to the need for compromise to save the political regime. A second effort to forge a bipartisan National Unity government was made by President Ospina. Liberal leaders were given prominent cabinet positions, and the government embarked on the drafting of major political reforms.

The second National Union coalition broke down, however, when the Liberal Party withdrew from it in May 1949. The ostensible reasons for the Liberal Party's withdrawal were the government's failure to carry out a reform of the police forces and partisan purges by Conservatives of the armed forces. However, the breakdown of the National Union can be attributed largely to the fact that loyal moderate leaders seeking a bipartisan solution no longer controlled the bulk of effective power and resources in their parties. They were unable to guarantee the adherence of party followers to agreements made with the other party, or to control actions by rival party leaders that disrupted their peace efforts. As a result of the mounting violence and hatred of the preceding years, the power centers of both parties had moved into positions of disloyalty to the regime. Laureano Gómez, the effective leader of the Conservative Party, attacked the regime's legitimacy from exile in Spain. This made it virtually impossible for President Ospina to mobilize Conservative support for peace efforts. Moderate Liberals were torn between the desire to save the system and the need not to be isolated from their fractionalized party following. Their ambivalence heightened Conservative suspicions and further eroded the framework of trust needed for negotiations.

The final months of Colombian democracy were characterized by an all-out struggle for control of the executive branch. This took the form of an institutional battle between the Liberal-controlled legislature and the Conservative-controlled executive. During this period both parties made full use of the institutions under their control for partisan ends. These included such "neutral" institutions as the courts and the military. As a result, decisions or initiatives emanating from the nation's highest political institutions were treated with contempt by adversely affected parties. For practical purposes, the political system had lost all authority. On 9 November 1949 President Ospina, in response to a congressional motion to impeach him, closed Congress, suspended civil liberties, and declared a state of siege.

Conclusion

The Colombian case provides a demonstration of the shortcomings of informal elite-based mechanisms of conflict resolution in a modernizing society. In order for such mechanisms to work, elites must exercise control over their constituencies. While such might have been the case during the earlier years of Colombia's oligarchic democracy, Colombian society in the 1930s and 1940s was far more mobilized and differentiated. Parties had developed deep linkages

into society, yet they exercised little control over their constituencies. This made it very difficult for party elites to maintain commitments entered into through the ad hoc and informal system of interelite bargaining. The lessons of this experience were well applied during the democratic restoration of 1958, when those same elites formalized previously implicit power-sharing guarantees and integrated them into the political system.

Another lesson this case provides is one that has often appeared in other case studies in this series: the danger of one party seeking to institutionalize its hegemony over the political system. In other countries, where the norms of democratic coexistence are weak, this often leads excluded parties to move into positions of disloyalty to the regime. In Colombia, the political system's legitimacy was based on the understanding that the power-sharing norms of *convivencia* would be respected. The threat of an institutionalized "Liberal Republic" led Conservative elites and their powerful constituencies to withdraw legitimacy from the system. This, combined with the particularities of the Colombian party system, ensured that political conflict would spread throughout the country.

Annotated Bibliography

- Dix, Robert H. *Colombia: The Political Dimensions of Change*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1967. Dix analyzes several facets of the Colombian political system, including its institutions, interest groups, and decision-making processes. His interest is how the Colombian political system manages the process of modernization and development. Contrasting it to other types of modernizing regimes in Latin America, he categorizes the Colombian system as "rule by a modernizing elite." This work was recently revised and updated in *The Politics of Colombia*, New York: Praeger and Hoover Institution Press, 1987.
- Oquist, Paul. *Violence, Conflict, and Politics in Colombia*. New York: Academic Press, 1980. Oquist's central concern is to explain the causes of *la violencia*. He suggests that a major cause of the violence of that period was "the partial collapse of the state." He provides a highly useful interpretation of events leading to the democratic breakdown as well as of how the political system shaped the character of the violent conflict during that period.
- Wilde, Alexander. "Conversations Among Gentlemen: Oligarchical Democracy in Colombia," in *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Latin America*, ed. Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan. Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978. In this article, Wilde provides an analysis of the breakdown of the Colombian democratic regime. This case study uses his argument that the causes of the crisis originated in the inadequacy of informal mechanisms of power-sharing and negotiation between party elites.
- Sanchez, Gonzalo, and Ricardo Peñaranda, eds. *Pasado y presente de la violencia en Colombia*. Bogotá: Fondo Editorial CEREC, 1986. A compilation of some of the most current work on *la violencia* by Colombian and North American scholars.
- Once *ensayos sobre la violencia*. Bogotá: Fondo Editorial CEREC y Centro Gaitán, 1985. A collection of some of the original and most influential articles on *la violencia*, including articles by E. J. Hobsbawm and Camilo Torres.

GUATEMALA, 1954: Regime Breakdown and Foreign Intervention

Chronology of Key Events

1944: Rebellions break out against the thirteen-year-old dictatorship of Jorge Ubico. A three-person *junta*, which includes reformist officer Jacobo Arbenz and conservative officer Jorge Arana, assumes power and calls for elections.

DECEMBER 1945: Juan José Arévalo is elected president with 85 percent of the vote. A Democratic-reformist regime is inaugurated.

JULY 1949: Jorge Arana is assassinated; Arbenz associates are implicated in the murder. Armed clashes break out between the government and Arana's supporters.

MARCH 1951: Jacobo Arbenz assumes the presidency.

JUNE 1952: The most extensive agrarian reform law in Guatemalan history is enacted. Part of land held by the U.S.-owned United Fruit Company is expropriated. Other measures are taken to counter U.S. economic influence in Guatemala.

JANUARY 1953: Dwight D. Eisenhower is inaugurated President in the United States. Conflict with the U.S. government grows.

MAY-JUNE 1954: The United States exposes Czech arms shipment to Guatemala and denounces the government as a communist beachhead in the Americas. An anti-Arbenz invasion force, covertly supported by the U.S. government, enters Guatemala.

27 JUNE 1954: Arbenz resigns from the presidency following an ultimatum from his military high command.

Introduction

The 1954 overthrow of the constitutionally elected President of Guatemala, Jacobo Arbenz Guzmán, presents a clear case of a democratic regime breaking down through foreign intervention. The government of President Arbenz was overthrown following an extended campaign of political and economic destabilization by the government of the United States, and an invasion of rebel forces armed, trained, supported, and reportedly directed by the U.S. government. The lessons offered by the Guatemalan case thus differ somewhat from those offered by most South American cases, where the United States played a far less important role.

Yet this difference should not be overestimated. In an analysis of the process that led to the breakdown, the United States must be considered an important

power contender in the domestic political arena. Beyond that, however, the Guatemalan case shares with its counterparts the incremental nature of the process of breakdown, where the actions of political leaders, particularly those in the incumbent government, led to the crystallization of a disloyal opposition that eventually overthrew the regime. In 1954 it is probable that opposition to the Arbenz government from the domestic economic elite (including the United Fruit Company) and from conservative elements of the military was not sufficient to overthrow the democratic regime. The decision by the United States to join them in that effort provided the "critical mass" for such an endeavor. Yet it should also be noted that efforts by the United States to overthrow the Arbenz government could not have succeeded without opposition to the government from important sectors of Guatemalan society, and without the loss of active support for the government by sectors that could have rallied to the regime's defense in the final stages of the crisis. The most important of these were loyal and semiloyal military elements that could have countered conservative disloyal officers within the military institution. The fact that actions by the Arbenz government led to a simultaneous loss of support for the regime from powerful actors both domestic and foreign accounts for the success of the anti-regime forces in 1954.

The Crystallization of Domestic Opposition

The conditions surrounding Jacobo Arbenz's ascent to power in 1951 were hardly auspicious. The democratic regime inaugurated in 1944 was unstable and beset by coup conspiracies. The government of Juan José Arévalo, which preceded Arbenz's government, had been reportedly the object of twenty-five coup attempts.

Two factors clouded the Arbenz government's legitimacy when it took power. The first was the 1949 assassination of Colonel Francisco Arana, Arbenz's chief conservative adversary. A number of Arbenz's close associates were implicated in the assassination. Arana's death was followed by a virtual state of civil war in which forces loyal to the government defeated pro-Arana military elements. The second factor was the 1950 presidential election, which was marred by violence and reports of electoral fraud.

The fast pace of social change and mobilization that had first developed under Arévalo's reformist regime intensified under the Arbenz government. Arbenz committed himself to a broad range of structural changes, the centerpiece of which was land reform. His economic program threatened powerful economic interests, particularly Guatemala's landowning oligarchy. Furthermore, Arbenz legalized the Communist Party, appointed a handful of communist leaders to secondary posts in his administration, and actively sought the support of communist-controlled rural and urban labor unions. These actions, as well as the revolutionary rhetoric often used by Arbenz and his supporters, solidified opposition to the regime from such traditional bastions of conservatism as the Church, the agrarian elite, and segments of the military.

Yet, while a strong base of opposition existed against the Arbenz government, several important sectors had benefited from its policies and offered a potentially important base of support. These included a growing domestic entrepreneurial sector, which had benefited from the government's nationalistic and stimulative economic policies, nationalist and reformist elements of the military, which formed an important part of the military institution, and also the increasingly mobilized lower socioeconomic groups.

In the latter part of his administration, as his economic and political problems intensified, Arbenz came to rely on his supporters on the left and in the labor movement for support. This was to have a number of adverse consequences. In spite of increased popular activity during the democratic regime, leftist and working-class groups were the weakest and least organized of Guatemala's power contenders. They were to prove ineffective against organized conservative forces seeking to topple the regime. Also, calls for popular mobilization by the government and its supporters increased the insecurity of non-working-class sectors and intensified the climate of instability in the country.

Of equal importance was the effect that calls by government supporters for the formation of popular militias and the arming of workers had on the military. Arbenz never fully disassociated himself from those calls. Fears of the creation of parallel armies affected loyal and disloyal officers alike, who shared an interest in the preservation of the institutional integrity of the armed forces. Arbenz's inability to deal decisively with those fears contributed in great measure to the failure of loyal and semiloyal military officers to rise to the defense of the regime during the final stages of the crisis.

Crystallization of U.S. Opposition

Arbenz's land reform program directly challenged the interests of Guatemala's largest landowner, the U.S.-owned United Fruit Company. The Arbenz government expropriated eighty-three thousand of the company's two hundred thousand hectares. The Arbenz government also sought to reduce the company's control over the country's ports and internal transportation system through the construction of alternative roads and port facilities. In addition, the government sought to diminish U.S. economic influence in such other areas as public utilities and oil exploration. These actions were protested by the U.S. government. With the advent of the Eisenhower administration, the U.S. government actively pressured the Guatemalan government on behalf of U.S. economic interests.

While the Arbenz government's economic policies created friction with powerful U.S. interests in Guatemala, its independent foreign policies brought it into direct conflict with the U.S. government. Guatemala took the leadership in hindering U.S. efforts in international forums to increase international participation in the Korean conflict. It also challenged U.S. objectives in other foreign policy areas. These actions took place at the height of the Cold War and

were viewed with intense hostility and suspicion by the U.S. government. Compounding them was the high visibility of the Communist Party in Guatemala, as well as the presence of Communist officials in Arbenz's government. Convinced that Guatemala was serving as a "beachhead" for international Communism in the Americas, the U.S. government embarked upon a major campaign of political and economic destabilization. Through the Central Intelligence Agency, it recruited and built a small armed force to topple the Arbenz government, and it mounted a massive antigovernment propaganda campaign aimed at creating discontent within the Guatemalan armed forces and other sectors of society.

In June 1954 the CIA-supported invasion force entered Guatemala. It suffered very heavy losses against Guatemalan forces. Toward the end of the month the invasion force had captured one departmental capital, but it was apparent that it had no chance of a military victory as long as the Guatemalan armed forces remained united behind their government. Arbenz's major problem, however, was not the invasion force, but his own rebellious military. In early June senior military officers, concerned by the government's policies and worried by growing leftist-led agitation, had demanded that Arbenz remove leading Communist officials from his government. They also demanded that he reject calls by his supporters for the formation of armed peasant and worker militias to defend the government. Arbenz did not act upon their demands.

On 25 June President Arbenz received an ultimatum from his senior officers on the front that demanded his resignation; these officers threatened to come to an agreement with the invasion force if he refused to resign. Arbenz immediately ordered the army chief of staff to distribute arms to his supporters in the labor unions and political parties. The army, however, refused to carry out the president's orders. On 27 June, Jacobo Arbenz resigned from the presidency.

Conclusion

The ouster of the Arbenz government provides important lessons to democratic leaders who must contend with opposition from both foreign and domestic quarters. The gravest threat to such a regime's survival lies in a potential alignment between domestic interests and a hostile foreign power. The Arbenz government had little chance of surviving as long as its policies threatened both the interests of powerful domestic sectors and the global interests of their potential foreign ally, the United States. In retrospect, therefore, it seems that the pursuit of an aggressively independent foreign policy, which brought little material gain to Guatemala but aroused the hostility of a highly suspicious U.S. government, was a tactical mistake. While the Arbenz government acted within its rights as a sovereign power, its primary interests, preserving the democratic regime and protecting its socioeconomic achievements, required that compromises be made to temper the hostility of its powerful northern neighbor. The success of Bolivia's revolutionary leaders in gaining the acceptance—and support—of the Eisenhower administration during that same period is instructive in that regard.

Arbenz's other critical error was in not solidifying a strong base of support within the military, the one organized entity capable of defending the regime against disloyal forces. The proximate cause of Arbenz's fall was not the U.S.-backed invasion force, but a coup launched by elements in his own high command. In a sense, Arbenz's pattern was similar to the one followed by Joao Goulart ten years later in Brazil. He placed inordinate reliance on the mobilization of his supporters on the left (who were far weaker than their conservative adversaries), and in so doing he alienated potential supporters in the military. His ambivalent position on the formation of popular militias diminished his support within the officer corps and created conflicts of loyalty for his military supporters. As Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan have noted, a democratic regime requires not merely the passive support of its followers, but their aggressive support in times of crisis. For Arbenz, the final line of defense for his regime in June 1954 was the armed forces. The passivity of potential military supporters in the final days of the crisis sealed the fate of the democratic regime.

Annotated Bibliography

- Adams, Richard N. *Crucifixion by Power: Essays on the Guatemalan National Social Structure, 1944-1966*. Austin: University of Texas Press, 1970. Whereas the body of literature on the Guatemalan democratic experience of 1945-54 focuses largely on the U.S. intervention, this book provides a useful and highly needed examination of the role of domestic power structures in perpetuating authoritarianism in Guatemala.
- Blasier, Cole. *The Hovering Giant: U.S. Responses to Revolutionary Change in Latin America*. Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1985. This book provides highly useful comparisons of U.S. responses to revolutionary governments in such countries as Mexico, Bolivia, Guatemala, and Cuba. It contains one of the most useful short treatments of the interplay between domestic and international factors that led to the overthrow of the Arbenz government.
- Immerman, Richard. *The CIA in Guatemala: The Foreign Policy of Intervention*. Austin: University of Texas Press, 1982. Immerman provides a detailed account of the U.S. policymaking process that led to the overthrow of the Arbenz government. He places the U.S. intervention in Guatemala within the context of the Cold War and draws linkages between the 1954 Guatemalan intervention and later interventions in Cuba and the Central American region.
- Schlesinger, Stephen, and Stephen Kinzer. *Bitter Fruit: The Untold Story of the American Coup in Guatemala*. New York: Doubleday and Company, Inc., 1982. As with Immerman, Schlesinger and Kinzer focus on the U.S. role in the overthrow of the Arbenz government. However, they are less restrained in the use of undocumented evidence and assertions. They also claim a far more direct connection between the interests of United Fruit company and the motives for intervention by the U.S. government.

ARGENTINA, 1955-1966: A Case of Aborted Legitimacy

Chronology of Key Events

SEPTEMBER 1955: The Government of Juan D. Perón is overthrown.

JANUARY 1958: After two-and-a-half years of military rule under General Pedro Aramburu, presidential elections are held, inaugurating Argentina's experiment in limited democracy. All Peronist parties are banned from political activity. Arturo Frondizi, in large part through a secret arrangement with the Peronists, wins the election with over 50 percent of the vote.

MARCH 1962: Arturo Frondizi is overthrown by a military coup following Peronist victories in congressional elections.

SEPTEMBER 1962; APRIL 1963: Armed clashes take place between the *gorilla* faction of the armed forces, favoring the establishment of a military government, and the "legalist" faction. Clashes result in decisive "legalist" victory.

JULY 1963: Arturo Illia is elected to the presidency.

MARCH 1965: Peronists score decisive gains in congressional elections.

JUNE 1966: President Illia is overthrown by a military coup. General Onganía is named president by the military junta.

Introduction

In contrast to the Chilean case, which involved the breakdown of a highly institutionalized regime with widespread legitimacy, the regime in Argentina from 1958 to 1966 was characterized by the disloyalty, or, at best, the semi-loyalty, of most influential sectors in society. The overthrow of President Illia in 1966 was thus less a culmination of a process of breakdown for an established democratic regime than the culmination of the failure by democratic leaders to institutionalize the norms and procedures of democratic coexistence within Argentine society.

The key task of democratic leaders between 1958 and 1966 was to expand the legitimacy of a system whose consolidation represented their only long-term hope of preserving political power. Their failure to do so lay largely in the constraints imposed on them by the military and other powerful sectors. The prevailing alignments of power compelled democratic leaders into coalition-building and conspiratorial activity with disloyal actors. However, democratic leaders also eroded whatever fragile legitimacy they, as a political class, could have imparted to the system. Deep antagonisms between democratic leaders, who tended to place a greater premium on the pursuit of power than on their common stake in constitutional government, precluded cooperation between them and helped to discredit the democratic process. The resulting loss of prestige suffered by the democratic regime fostered the rise of alternative political ideologies in civil society and the military. As the final vestiges of democratic legitimacy disintegrated in the mid-1960s, these other ideologies gained acceptance within society at large and paved the way for the most smoothly executed military coup in Argentine history.

"Birth Defects" of the Regime Inaugurated in 1958

The two most distinguishing features of the constitutional regime inaugurated in 1958 were the military's dominance over the political process and the banning of Peronist parties from political activity. These two factors provided the democratic regime with a very narrow base of legitimacy from the start.

Another factor compounding the regime's inherent instability was a bitter split between two factions of the Radical Party, Argentina's largest non-Peronist movement and the only possible agent of a majoritarian non-Peronist coalition. This split divided the movement into two parties, the *Radicales Intransigentes* (UCRI), led by Arturo Frondizi, and the *Radicales del Pueblo* (UCRP), led by long-time Radical leader Ricardo Balbín. It effectively prevented cooperation between the two largest political groups that shared a stake in the preservation of constitutional government. It also contained the seeds of the eventual collapse of the Argentine democratic experiment.

The Frondizi Government

The electoral strategy that brought Arturo Frondizi to power in 1958 was based on a populist electoral platform, as well as a secret agreement with the exiled leader, Juan Perón. This agreement gave Frondizi the support of Peronist voters in exchange for legalizing the Peronist Party by a Frondizi government. While it was instrumental in his election victory, Frondizi's strategy carried a number of costs that eventually impaired his ability to govern.

First, it created expectations in much of the voting public that, given the limitations on his government, Frondizi would be unable to fulfill. Second, it placed him under deep suspicion within the armed forces, which further limited his range of action in office. Third, it created a political debt to Perón and his followers, most of whom were openly disloyal to the regime, which he lacked the resources to repay. His government was soon accused by Peronist leaders with virulence of "betraying" their movement. This immediately threw the government's legitimacy into question among sectors that had hoped to be reincluded in the political process by the Frondizi administration.

Largely as a result of military pressure, Frondizi reversed many of his electoral promises and enacted an orthodox economic austerity program in 1959. This action, as well as other aspects of economic policy, shattered his electoral base of support. As a result, he came under the increasing control of the armed forces. His repeated tactical efforts to build new bases of support through popular appeals were thwarted by the military and served only to heighten suspicions in the officer corps against his government.

The one option that would have given the Frondizi government an electoral majority was a coalition with the other large political entity with a direct stake in the system: the UCRP. However, this option was precluded by the intense rivalries existing between the top leadership of the two parties. Following Peronist victories in the 1962 congressional elections (Frondizi had lifted the

electoral ban), the president appealed to UCRP and other, minor party leaders to form a coalition to avert a military coup. They rejected his appeal, citing his government's "antinationalistic" economic policies and other factors. In the words of one observer, "So great was their distrust of Frondizi that they preferred to risk the breakdown of civilian government rather than do anything that would enable him to serve out his term."³ The UCRP actively supported the military faction that overthrew Frondizi's government in March 1962.

The Illia Government

The 1963 election of UCRP candidate Arturo Illia followed a series of armed clashes between two military factions over the nature of the political order that would follow the overthrow of the Frondizi government. They resulted in the victory of the "legalist" faction of the armed forces, led by General Juan Carlos Onganía, which permitted the holding of presidential elections and the assumption of power by Arturo Illia.

The inauguration of Illia's presidency was marred by an additional set of factors. He was elected president with a mere 26 percent of the vote. His election was due less to his own charismatic appeal than to the proscription of Peronism and the divisive nature of the non-Peronist opposition (the UCRP, with Frondizi under detention, had split into two antagonistic factions). Furthermore, Illia's party, the UCRP, was closely allied with the military faction defeated by Onganía's forces in the clashes mentioned above. Thus, as with the Frondizi government, the Illia administration entered office under deep suspicion from the dominant leaders of the armed forces.

Nevertheless, President Illia "gave liberal democracy one of its fairest tests in Argentine history."⁴ To an extent greater than any of his predecessors, he allowed freedom of the press, tolerated union activism, respected the rights of opposition political parties, and limited policymaking to constitutional decision-making channels.

Nevertheless, two characteristics of his rule undermined his efforts to build the foundations for a democratic regime. The first was his lackluster leadership. In a period during which competing authoritarian ideologies that promised dynamic leadership were gaining support in growing segments of society, the Illia government focused primarily on short-term initiatives, offering no long-range programmatic vision. Juan Linz writes of the importance for a new democratic regime of setting and controlling an "initial agenda" to galvanize its following and build support for the regime. The Illia government's failure to do this provided valuable ammunition to disloyal elements that offered alternatives to a democratic system increasingly perceived as ineffective.

Secondly, in spite of its obvious minority status, the Illia government rejected the formation of governing coalitions with the leadership of other parties. Determined not to share power after over thirty years in opposition, even with parties sympathetic to its program, the UCRP isolated itself from constitutionalist elements that could have provided support against a military coup. A telling remark was made by a Christian Democratic legislator only days before

the coup: "The country does not deserve a military coup, but this government does."⁵

The media played a central role in eroding the legitimacy of the Illia government and the democratic regime. In increasingly strident tones, influential newspapers and magazines denounced the government's leadership, praised the virtues of potential leaders of a military coup, ridiculed the president and his cabinet, and questioned the effectiveness of democratic institutions. These attacks and the intellectual climate they created were instrumental in generating public support for a coup. Political leaders, including the leaders of deposed constitutional governments, also called openly for the Illia government's ouster. Former President Frondizi himself announced the dawning of a "great revolution" just days before the coup.

All this clamor accompanied the growth of new ideologies in the armed forces. The proponents of these ideologies saw the armed forces, whose hierarchy and cohesion had been restored under Onganía's leadership, as leading a new political order characterized by social discipline, centralized authority, and rational industrial development.

On 28 June 1966, the armed forces announced the ouster of the constitutional government of Arturo Illia. Shortly after that, Juan Carlos Onganía was named president by the military junta. No public protest followed the coup. Several political party leaders pledged their support for the coup and offered their services to the new government. They soon learned, however, as did their Chilean counterparts several years later, that they would be allowed no role in the new authoritarian regime whose birth they had eagerly awaited.

Conclusion

A major reason for the failure of the 1958-1966 democratic regime was the restriction imposed on democratic leaders by the permanent specter of military intervention. This created what Guillermo O'Donnell has called an "impossible game" for democratic elites: popular appeals to expand the regime's legitimacy sparked the hostility of the armed forces; submission to military demands eroded electoral support. However, within this restricted political context there was space for democratic leaders to gradually build the foundations of a democratic order.

The first obvious step in such a direction was cooperation between non-Peronist political parties. As the only political entities with a stake in the constitutional regime, the burden of preserving it fell heaviest on them. Unity between Radicals and other moderate non-Peronists could have provided a basis for a majoritarian coalition, or at least for a common front opposed to military intervention. It also offered the most realistic hope for a gradual (and nonthreatening) reincorporation of Peronist parties into the democratic process. In large measure, it was the divisiveness of non-Peronist forces that gave the military so much influence over Argentine political life.

Another factor that facilitated the coup of 1966 was the discredit suffered by the democratic process from the violation by party leaders of constitutional

norms and procedures. The pursuit and maintenance of power by democratic elites seemed to rely more on *golpismo*—encouraging military coups—and factional military alliances than on election strategies and democratic coalition-building. The fact that all political elites had been parties to such behavior severely eroded whatever legal legitimacy they might have possessed once in office. The positive impact that Arturo Illia's constitutionalist government could have had on the regime's legitimacy was mitigated by his party's involvement in Frondizi's overthrow, its past affinities with *gorila* elements in the military, and the partisan nature of its rule. The cumulative effect of these patterns of behavior was a generalized disdain in Argentine society for the class of elites linked to democratic procedures and institutions. It is a condition that persists to this day, and presents a formidable challenge to the consolidation of democracy there.

Annotated Bibliography

- O'Donnell, Guillermo. *Modernization and Bureaucratic Authoritarianism: Studies in South American Politics*. Institute of International Studies. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1978. O'Donnell provides an important theoretical contribution to the explanation of the "bureaucratic authoritarian" phenomenon in Latin America, basing his analysis on the Argentine and Brazilian experiences. This book also contains a very interesting analysis of party politics in Argentina from 1955 to 1966, as well as an interpretation of the 1966 coup.
- Potash, Robert. *The Army and Politics in Argentina, 1945-1962*. Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1980. Potash provides a minutely detailed description of political events in Argentina during that period, focusing particularly on the military's involvement in politics and on political dynamics within the military institution.
- Rouquié, Alain. *Poder militar y sociedad política en la Argentina*. Buenos Aires: Emecé Editores, 1978. This is an excellent (if at times polemical) analysis, full of valuable empirical material and interpretive insights, of the interaction between the military and political society in Argentina from the birth of the republic to 1973. Originally published as French, as *Pouvoir militaire et société politique en République Argentine*, Paris: Presses de la Fondation Nationale des Sciences Politiques, 1978.
- Rock, David. *Argentina, 1516-1982: From Spanish Colonization to the Falklands War*. Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1985. A valuable contribution to an understanding of the historical roots of modern Argentina's social, political, and economic problems. Contains a detailed examination of pre-1955 events, as well as a less thorough yet interesting interpretation of more recent events.
- Wynia, Gary. *Argentina in the Post-War Era: Politics and Economic Policy Making in a Divided Society*. Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1978. Wynia examines the relationship between political regimes and policymaking between 1945 and 1976. He presents interesting contrasts of the types of strategies, coalitions, and policy options available to political leaders under different types of regimes.

BRAZIL, 1964: The Failure of Popular Mobilization

Chronology of Key Events

August 1961: Jânio Quadros, president of Brazil, resigns unexpectedly after only seven months in office.

SEPTEMBER 1961: João Goulart, Quadros's vice-president, assumes the presidency. However, his powers are sharply curtailed by Congress.

JANUARY 1963: Following prolonged effort by Goulart to have his full presidential powers restored, a plebiscite restores a full presidential system.

MID-1963: The economic crisis grows as the government's stabilization plan fails. Political instability and mobilization affect most parts of the country.

13 MARCH 1964: At a large rally, President Goulart calls for fundamental reforms in the nation's constitution and economic structure. He calls for massive demonstrations and nationwide strikes to pressure Congress to enact the reforms.

26 MARCH 1964: An enlisted men's naval mutiny takes place in support of the Goulart government. The government grants amnesty to the mutineers.

31 MARCH 1964: A military coup overthrows the government of president João Goulart.

Introduction

The collapse of the Brazilian constitutional regime in 1964 was a direct result of actions taken by the incumbent leadership, particularly during the final weeks of the regime, which eroded the legitimacy of the government and generated a "critical mass" of support for a military coup.

Long-term pressures on the Brazilian political system had created an open crisis of regime as far back as 1961. Influential leaders from all parts of the political spectrum called for substantive changes in the constitutional regime, and vocal sectors on the left demanded a restructuring of the socioeconomic order. Yet the final outcome of the crisis—military overthrow of the regime rather than reform through constitutional channels—was by no means foreordained. It was the direct result of decisions taken by the political leadership, particularly President Goulart's deliberate use of popular mobilization as a political strategy, which alienated regime supporters and created the conditions for disloyal elements within the armed forces to overthrow the constitutional regime.

The Goulart Government

João Goulart assumed power in 1961 amid strong opposition to his rule from Congress, as well as widespread questioning of the political regime's capabilities for coping with Brazil's fundamental problems. Much of that questioning came from the regime's top leaders. Goulart's presidency followed the abrupt resignation of President Jânio Quadros, who had resigned in a failed bid to expand the prerogatives and powers of the presidency. Goulart himself assumed office with his powers greatly curtailed by Congress, and he spent much of his first two years as president attempting to get those restraints rescinded.

Throughout Goulart's tenure, support for an overthrow of the regime existed in the military and the economic elite. Yet this support was not in itself sufficient for the crystallization of a coup coalition capable of overthrowing the constitutional regime. Several factors impeded such a development. Among these were the powers inherent in the office of the presidency and the vested interest of powerful politicians in preserving constitutional forms of government. A number of these politicians commanded a wide following within the electorate, and they hoped to reach the presidency in future elections. Their support was critical to the success of a potential coup coalition.

There were also divisions within the military institution. While powerful military elements, disenchanted by civilian rule and influenced by what one observer has called "new professionalist" ideologies⁶ actively conspired to launch a coup, they were countered by a strong legalist tendency within the armed forces.

These regime-sustaining forces, however, were to be rapidly eroded by events that took place in the final weeks of March 1964. They were set in motion by a decision by President Goulart to break the deadlock in the system through a deliberate intensification of the political crisis. By means of this effort Goulart hoped to bring about a realignment of political powers that would allow him to expand his presidential powers and to enact fundamental reforms in Brazil's socioeconomic structure. At a political rally on 13 March Goulart outlined a series of proposals for constitutional and economic reform and called for massive demonstrations and strikes throughout the country to pressure a reluctant Congress to enact his proposals.

While Goulart's strategy succeeded in intensifying the crisis, it led ultimately to the downfall of his government. Its results were to mobilize disloyal forces into action against the government, and to alienate actors whose active support Goulart needed for the defense of the constitutional regime.

The structural reforms proposed by Goulart threatened powerful economic interests and helped to shift those who had either been uncommitted or semiloyal into a position of disloyalty toward the democratic regime. In addition, the apprehension of the middle classes caused by rampant inflation and an erratic economy was aggravated by the rhetoric of revolution and mass mobilization that accompanied statements by Goulart and his supporters. The insecurity of the middle classes was joined to the fear of more powerful sectors in society. Disparate and often antagonistic groups became linked in opposition to the Goulart government.

Goulart's decision to resort to popular mobilization also had a number of adverse effects on the position of his government. By relying on what was basically an extraconstitutional channel for advancing his objectives, he neglected and alienated moderate centrist and leftist supporters within political society that could have served as allies in a constitutional effort to pass his reforms or to block a potential coup. Several leaders within political society, alarmed by his rhetoric and political tactics, also began to suspect that he had anticonstitutionalist intentions of his own. They therefore saw it in their

interest to oppose his initiative, and they moved into a position to support elements committed to his overthrow. Although loyal to the political regime in which they had a vested interest, their opposition to the government shifted them into supporting a coup coalition whose leaders were bent on doing away with the democratic system.

The regime's loss of legitimacy was to a great extent accelerated by Goulart's own statements on the need for constitutional reform. His attacks on the constitution as archaic and obsolete undermined his own claims, as a constitutional president, to obedience from the public and the military. Statements by close supporters of the president that denigrated the constitution and the nation's political institutions compounded the problem. Such statements, made by individuals whose authority was based on the legitimacy of constitutional institutions, helped remove the air of illegality that might have surrounded plotters against the regime.

Another consequence of Goulart's actions serves as a powerful lesson to other democratic leaders considering the use of popular mobilization as a political tactic. Unless carefully controlled, popular mobilization can acquire a momentum of its own that, particularly in times of crisis, will move beyond the political leadership's control. Leaders in political society must retain the initiative in the political process. Transferring that initiative to highly mobilized groups in civil society can lead people to believe that constitutional leaders have lost control of the political process. In the final weeks preceding the 1964 coup, there were many in Brazilian society who felt that such a point had been reached.

The Role of the Media and Foreign Actors

The media played an active role in galvanizing support for a coup in the final weeks of the regime. Following the rally of 13 March, some of the more important newspapers adopted editorial positions that were decidedly pro-coup. Most of the editorials called on the military to assume its traditional role as defender of the constitution against a government that seemed bent on subverting it. Few, however, actually called for the permanent abolition of democratic rule in Brazil. Nevertheless, the pro-coup stance of much of the media facilitated matters for the anti-regime plotters within the military.

The United States also played a visible role in destabilizing the Goulart government. Angered by Goulart's populist policies, the U.S. government greatly reduced its economic assistance. It also gave encouragement to pro-coup elements within the military with whom it was tied through military assistance programs. Military training programs sponsored by the U.S. government, which emphasized anti-subversive internal security doctrines, also influenced the ideological development of officers who would lead the coup against the constitutional regime. Finally, the U.S. government provided strong political and economic support to the military regime after the coup.

Final Decisions

The decisive step in the breakdown process occurred during the enlisted men's naval mutiny of 26 March. In an expression of support for the Goulart government, more than one thousand sailors and marines seized a naval armory in Rio de Janeiro. During the mutiny, Goulart exhibited extreme indecision. He finally delegated the decision on how to respond to the uprising to a naval minister, who opted for granting amnesty to the mutineers.

Goulart's response to the mutiny galvanized support for a coup among important elements of the military, who now feared the disintegration of discipline within the military institution. Just as important, it diminished the aggressiveness with which his military supporters might have defended the regime, because they were now torn by conflicting loyalties to the government and to the integrity of the military institution. Their ambivalent support was no match for the intensity of the coup coalition that overthrew the democratic regime on 31 March, and launched twenty years of bureaucratic-authoritarian rule.

Conclusion

The breakdown of Brazilian democracy in 1964 demonstrates how the actions of a political leader can compound the structural weaknesses of a regime and precipitate its downfall. In early 1964 the overthrow of democracy was not an inevitability. Several factors existed that countered the destructive tendencies in the political system and offered the possibility of a constitutional solution to the crisis. However, deliberate decisions taken by the president and his supporters gradually eroded support for the regime.

Specifically, Goulart's resort to popular mobilization had a number of adverse consequences for the regime. It created a climate of instability that, far from serving as a manifestation of the president's popular support, gave the impression that the political process was no longer being controlled by the constitutional leadership. It aggravated fears in the middle and upper classes of an imminent radical takeover of the government. As an extraconstitutional bid to pressure the legislature to enact reforms, Goulart's action alienated important segments of political society. It also threw the government's own commitment to constitutional procedures into question and prompted many regime supporters into an alliance with disloyal forces. The last weeks of the Goulart government provide a fascinating case study of the dangers of the use of popular mobilization as a political strategy by democratic leaders.

Goulart's final critical error was in not recognizing that fears for the integrity of the military institution would weigh far more heavily on the minds of his military supporters than concerns for the survival of the constitutional government. In this error he would join the company of such other Latin American leaders such as Yrigoyen, Perón, Arbenz, and Allende. Goulart's failure to take

decisive measures to assuage such fears in the final stages of the crisis made the erosion of support for the democratic regime complete.

Annotated Bibliography

- Roett, Riordan. *Brazil: Politics in a Patrimonial Society*. New York: Praeger Publishers, 1984. This book provides an interesting introductory overview of Brazilian history and politics from the colonial period to the present, including the recent transition to democratic government. The author describes the Brazilian political system within the context of a "patrimonial" social order that has placed limits on the growth of popular participation and national integration.
- Skidmore, Thomas E. *Politics in Brazil, 1930-1964: An Experiment in Democracy*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1967. A thorough treatment of Brazilian politics from the rise of Vargas to the fall of João Goulart. Skidmore pays extensive attention to the Goulart government and the collapse of the democratic regime in 1964.
- Stepan, Alfred. *The Military in Politics: Changing Patterns in Brazil*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1971. Stepan analyzes the causes of the breakdown of Brazilian democracy in 1964, focusing specifically on evolving patterns of civilian-military interaction. Stepan also examines internal military dynamics, such as changes in military ideologies and organization that contributed to the 1964 military coup and to the imposition of extended authoritarian rule. An abridged version of Stepan's argument is presented in his chapter on Brazil in *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Latin America*, ed. Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan, Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978. This case study uses Stepan's argument that the popular mobilization strategy employed by Goulart in the final days of his presidency was decisive in crystallizing support for anti-regime forces.
- Stepan, Alfred, ed. *Authoritarian Brazil: Origins, Policies, Future*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1973. A valuable collection of essays by prominent scholars that discusses political origins, political economy, and the possible evolution of authoritarianism in Brazil.

CHILE, 1973: Fragmentation of Political Center

Chronology of Key Events

SEPTEMBER 1964: Eduardo Frei, leader of the Christian Democratic Party, is elected president with 56.1 percent of the vote. His election is supported by Chile's two main conservative parties. The Christian Democratic "Revolution in Liberty" is inaugurated.

MARCH 1965: The Christian Democrats win an unprecedented majority in the Chamber of Deputies during congressional elections.

SEPTEMBER 1970: Leftist *Unidad Popular* (UP) candidate Salvador Allende wins presidential elections with 36 percent of the vote.

DECEMBER 1971-OCTOBER 1972: Popular mobilization intensifies, followed by countermobilization by the middle class and established interests.

Truckers' strike gains wide adherence by professionals, shopkeepers, and other groups. Allende invites senior military officers into his cabinet.

MARCH 1973: Congressional elections fail to break the political deadlock.

JUNE 1973: A coup attempt is crushed by the constitutionalist chief of staff of the army. Further talks between the government and the opposition break down.

AUGUST 1973: Chamber of Deputies adopts a resolution declaring UP government unconstitutional.

SEPTEMBER 1973: A military coup deposes the government of Salvador Allende.

Introduction

The breakdown of democracy in Chile resulted from the erosion of traditional norms of accommodation and compromise between political leaders at the center of the political spectrum. The failure to arrive at centrist compromises by leaders of diverse political parties resulted in the decline of mediating institutions and procedures that for generations had provided stability in an ideologically polarized society. As a result, the democratic leadership lost the initiative in Chilean political life, giving way to mobilization politics and undermining the regime's legitimacy among the military and important sectors of civil society.

Early Indicators of the Breakdown

The early signs of a shift in the basic patterns of Chilean politics came with the displacement of the pragmatic Radical Party by the Christian Democrats as Chile's most important center party. The Christian Democrats rejected the Radicals' nonideological strategy of pursuing power through coalitions with the left and the right, and sought to build an ideological centrist majority committed to moral renewal and gradual social change. While the party's *partido unico* and "Revolution in Liberty" strategies responded to deeply felt needs within Chilean society, their unintended consequence was to harden the political system's ideological poles. Opposition parties on the right and the left were excluded from much of the policymaking process. Deprived of the possibility of sharing power through traditional coalition-building mechanisms, they sought to consolidate their own bases of support in the electorate by means of sharply defined ideological and partisan appeals.

During the 1970 elections, party leaders rejected the formation of preelectoral coalitions between the center parties and the parties of the left or the right. The inevitable outcome of that decision was the election of a minority president. Furthermore, the failure of centrist leaders to structure a preelection,

compromise created the likely possibility that the minority president would come from one of the more extreme ideological ends of the political spectrum.

The Unidad Popular Government and the Growing Crisis of Regime

Tensions in the political system following the 1970 election victory of the leftist *Unidad Popular* coalition surfaced immediately. A coup attempt by elements of the military was aborted, and the opposition forced Salvador Allende to sign a "Statute of Guarantees," committing himself to preserving constitutional liberties while in office. The demand that an experienced and respected parliamentarian formally commit himself to what should have been an implicit part of Chilean political life was a strong manifestation of how strained the patterns of trust and consensus between members of the political elite had become.

The Allende government was soon beset by a series of destabilizing problems. The first of these was an economic crisis in large part generated by its own policies. The government granted massive wage increases and embarked on the takeover of large numbers of industrial firms. These measures led to spiraling inflation and severely taxed the Chilean economy. They also aroused powerful opposition from several social sectors. While the difficulties and opposition generated by those policies undermined the UP's ability to implement other aspects of its program, they were probably politically unavoidable. Given the expectations generated by its election victory and the absence of a moderating effect of a coalition with important centrist parties, the new UP government was compelled to make bold moves in pursuit of its socialist strategy to preserve the support of important elements in its coalition. Such moves, however, confirmed the early fears of the opposition and intensified the sense of crisis in the country.

Another problem that undermined the government's legitimacy early in its tenure was popular mobilization. It took the form of strikes, demonstrations, and unauthorized industrial takeovers (often encouraged by elements within the UP coalition), and a countermobilization was instituted by the middle class and established interests. The inability to maintain order is often one of the most serious threats to the legitimacy of a democratic government. In a highly polarized context, in which many believe the government itself is responsible for much of the violence, the threat is particularly grave. Salvador Allende's reluctance to disassociate himself from radical elements in his coalition involved in the violence compounded the suspicions of the opposition about the intentions of his government.

Between March and June 1972, moderate leaders of the UP and the opposition parties met repeatedly to negotiate a resolution to the political crisis. In the final phase of these negotiations, both sides reached substantial agreements on a number of disputes, including key aspects of the UP's economic program and relations between the government and the opposition. These agreements would have represented substantial compromises by the Allende government. They

would, however, have permitted a continuation of the process of socioeconomic change that it sought, albeit at a moderated pace.

The negotiations broke down, first in April, when the UP canceled talks under pressure from its left wing, and finally, in July, when the Christian Democrats withdrew in response to pressure and parliamentary maneuvers by their conservative faction. The breakdown of talks resulted from the reluctance of centrist leaders to risk losing support in their parties by forging compromises for the sake of the political system. Their failure to take that risk during the critical negotiations of March–June 1972 had devastating consequences for Chile's democracy. One author has noted that "in retrospect, the negotiations appear to have been the last chance to prevent the polarization which terminated in the 1973 coup."⁷

The Role of Other Actors

Outside of Chilean political society, two actors that played visible roles in the breakdown of democracy were the media and the United States government. While neither of these two actors played a decisive role in the breakdown, they did contribute to the intensity of the crisis that led to the overthrow of the Allende government. The broadcast media and influential newspapers, particularly the daily *El Mercurio*, played an important and increasingly strident role in opposition to the UP government. In the final days before the coup, *El Mercurio* and other publications openly called on the military to overthrow the *Unidad Popular* government. While most of the media acted independently of the political leadership, their reporting and editorializing tended to be highly partisan, often conveying inaccurately the positions of leaders on the other side. As traditional political mechanisms of bargaining and compromise broke down, political leaders resorted to the media to advance their positions, contributing further to the climate of rhetorical excess and conflict.

The role of the United States government in the overthrow of the UP government has been the subject of considerable political and scholarly debate. The U.S. government played an active role in supporting the rise of the Christian Democratic movement, both overtly, through the Alliance for Progress, and covertly (allegedly unbeknownst to the Christian Democratic leadership) through substantial CIA financing and propaganda during the 1964 and 1970 elections. More significantly, the U.S. government embarked on an open campaign of destabilization of the Allende government through economic sanctions and covert aid to opposition groups, including *El Mercurio* and the striking truckers. While less important as determinants of the breakdown than the internal crisis of the Chilean political system, these actions contributed substantially to the climate of crisis and instability that pervaded Allende's years in office.

Final Decisions

The stalemate in political society led finally to the politicization of "neutral" powers in the state. During 1972 leaders resorted to such politically neutral branches of government as the court system and the *Contraloría General de la República* to resolve disputes between the president and the legislature. In Chile's highly institutionalized political system, these branches of government commanded great respect as bastions of impartiality, legality, and fairness. By calling upon them to rule on political issues that were matters for the executive and legislature to decide, political leaders threw their neutrality into question. It was no longer possible for those branches to rule on key issues without appearing either "reactionary" or "revolutionary." Their politicization was a further manifestation of the erosive effect of the political crisis on the country's democratic institutions.

In the second half of 1972 political leaders made a decision that in other countries has often preceded the breakdown of democratic institutions: the politicization of the military. In return for an end to a nationwide strike, the UP government agreed to appoint the commander in chief of the army and a number of other military officers to key positions in the cabinet. While the measure was designed to bring stability to the system until legislative elections could be held, it effectively put an end to the neutrality of the last "neutral" institution in Chile.

Participation in government opened deep cleavages within the military institution. After legislative elections failed to break the political deadlock, the armed forces left the UP government. Their departure left a power vacuum that the government was unable to fill.

On 29 June 1973, an attempted military coup was crushed by the loyalist commander in chief of the army, General Carlos Prats. This led to the final effort by moderates to structure a centrist consensus. Although they came close to reaching an agreement on the formation of a new cabinet, the government refused to accede to the Christian Democratic demand that military officers be appointed to the cabinet at all levels of government. Talks once again broke down. On 22 August the Chamber of Deputies adopted a "Sense of the House" resolution declaring that the Allende government was unconstitutional.

The failure of the final centrist attempt at compromise in an atmosphere where calls for the overthrow of the government or the arming of the workers were the order of the day made it inevitable that the last loyal and semi-loyal elements in the military and political society would quickly move into disloyalty to the democratic regime. The military coup that overthrew the government of Salvador Allende on 11 September thus came as little surprise to anyone. Involved in the decision by centrist democrats to support the coup was the fatal miscalculation that the military would return power to them once the immediate problem of the UP government was resolved. Few imagined that they, as had so many other abdicating democrats in Latin America, would be so absolutely excluded from the new political order inaugurated by the military.

Conclusion

The Chilean case illustrates, as do the Colombian and Venezuelan breakdowns, the potential costs to a democratic regime of hegemonic quests by individual political parties. In Chile's highly developed and ideological party system, where power sharing and coalition-building norms were essential ingredients in the maintenance of a fragile center consensus, the cost was retrenchment by parties on the left and the right around ideological and maximalist agendas. Had the Christian Democratic victories of the 1950s and 1960s actually represented the emergence of a permanent and dynamic centrist majority, the exclusion of noncentrist parties would not have had as destabilizing an effect. However, as the 1970 elections showed, (when the Christian Democrats received only 28 percent of the vote), the maintenance of centrist majorities still required coalitions with parties on either end of the political spectrum. By 1970, however, the parties at the two ends were determined to seek power on their own.

The experience of the Allende years also illustrates the burden that centrist leaders must carry in preserving the viability of democratic institutions in times of crisis and polarization. The need to make clear and unambiguous moves in defense of the system, even at the expense of losing the adherence of supporters on extreme ends of the political spectrum, is critical in periods of high instability. Ambiguity in the quest for a centrist consensus will be interpreted in the worst possible light by other moderates, whose perceptions will be clouded by the events and passions of the moment. Such conditions will lead, as they did in Chile, to an erosion of the framework of trust that is a requisite of democratic negotiation.

Another important lesson concerns the cost to a democratic regime's legitimacy of the politicization of such nonpolitical institutions as the courts or the military. The decision by political leaders in Chile to move in that direction resulted from a stalemate in the political decision-making process. Resort to other sources of authority—not tarnished by the partisan struggle—seemed the only way of resolving crucial problems. However, it removed the impartiality that gave those institutions the substance of their constitutional legitimacy. Politicization of the armed forces pushed them into open conflict with groups involved in the political struggle. It was also an admission by civilian elites that they no longer controlled the political process. Both of those factors gave the military ample incentive to remove civilians from office and launch a campaign of repression against opposition in society.

Annotated Bibliography

Boorstein, Edward. *Allende's Chile: An Inside View*. New York: International Publishers, 1977. An American Marxist economist's description of the workings of the *Unidad Popular* government and the obstacles that hindered the implementation of its strategies. This work focuses far more on the impact of U.S. intervention, and places greater primacy on its role in the breakdown, than the other works cited below.

Sigmund, Paul E. *The Overthrow of Allende and the Politics of Chile, 1964-1976*. Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1977. Sigmund provides a detailed account of the events that led from the election of the first government to the overthrow of Allende. In a portrait that is generally sympathetic to the Christian Democratic leadership, Sigmund's book is particularly valuable in describing the internal tensions and divisions within the Christian Democratic and *Unidad Popular* movements that shaped many of the decisions leading to the breakdown of democracy.

Valenzuela, Arturo. *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Chile*. Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978. This book is part of the series of studies on Latin America and southern Europe entitled *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, edited by Juan Linz and Alfred Stepan. In what has become one of the most influential interpretations of the breakdown of Chilean democracy, Valenzuela provides a balanced and theoretically grounded analysis. He places the primary burden for the breakdown on the failure of the political system to maintain the politics of accommodation that for generations had maintained stability in a polarized society. His arguments on the role of the Christian Democratic Party's rise in that process is advanced in this case study.

Whiting, Van. "Political Mobilization and the Breakdown of Democracy in Chile," *Latin American Issues* 1, 1 (1984). In a suggestive article that challenges Valenzuela's interpretation of the causes of the Chilean breakdown, Whiting argues that its primary cause was the unprecedented degree of popular mobilization that began in the 1960s and eventually overwhelmed the political system's absorptive capacities. He thus counters Valenzuela's assertion that the breakdown of the political system preceded destructive popular mobilization.

URUGUAY, 1973: Democratic Abdication and the Militarization of Politics

Chronology of Key Events

NOVEMBER 1966: A plebiscite is held that approves a new constitution abolishing the collegial executive. Presidential elections are also held, which result in the election of Colorado candidate Oscar Gestido. Upon his death one year later, he is succeeded by Vice-President Jorge Pacheco Areco.

JUNE 1968: The government declares a state of siege, under *Medidas Provisas de Seguridad* (Prompt Security Measures), in response to strikes and attacks by the Tupamaro guerrilla group. Regular suspension of constitutional guarantees and censorship of the press follow under the *Medidas* during subsequent years.

MID-1970: Tupamaro guerrillas kidnap and assassinate Dan Mitrione, a USAID official working with the Uruguayan police. Congress agrees to declare a twenty-day suspension of constitutional guarantees.

SEPTEMBER 1971: The government transfers responsibility for combating the Tupamaro guerrillas from the police to the armed forces.

FEBRUARY 1972: Juan María Bordaberry assumes the presidency.

FEBRUARY 1973: Following an attempted coup by military elements, Bordaberry agrees to the formation of a military-dominated National Security Council to oversee government decisions.

JUNE 1973: President Bordaberry announces the dissolution of Congress. Military-authoritarian rule is imposed on Uruguay.

Introduction

The breakdown of Uruguayan democracy in 1973 followed a prolonged period of decay in the nation's democratic institutions. As far back as the 1950s when economic decline put an end to decades of prosperity, the political system, particularly the legislature, showed signs of immobilism in the face of pressing needs for reform and for a programmatic vision. The decline of Uruguay's political democracy accelerated dramatically in the late 1960s when protest and political violence from civil society sparked repressive counter-measures from the state. Between 1967 and 1973, as states of siege became almost routine and constitutional liberties eroded, the Uruguayan legislature became irrelevant to the political process. The military gained incremental control over most aspects of political life. When President Bordaberry announced the dissolution of Congress and the imposition of military-authoritarian rule in 1973, he was merely adjusting the nation's formal political structures to the realities of political power in Uruguay.

Early Crisis of Regime

The decline of international demand for Uruguay's traditional exports in the 1950s plunged the country into an economic crisis from which, up to the present date, it has not recovered. The nation's industrial development strategy, its extensive social welfare system, and even its highly developed clientelistic party system were predicated upon the prosperity of its agro-export sector. When that sector failed to adapt to changing international markets, stagnation gripped virtually all other sectors of society.

The economic depression set in motion a crisis of regime. At the root of the crisis was the visible lack of efficacy—the ability to identify solutions to fundamental problems⁸—of the Uruguayan political system. Deeply entrenched in society through clientelistic party networks, mired in allocative politics, and controlled by a factional, aging, and noninnovative party leadership, the national legislature seemed unable to provide any new programmatic vision for the country. Legislative paralysis was compounded by the collegial nature of the executive branch, which was divided between the two dominant parties, the Colorado and Blanco parties.

By the 1960s the crisis of regime was being manifested in widespread questioning of the nation's political institutions and by calls for constitutional reform. A new constitution was enacted in 1966, which among other changes

replaced the collegial executive branch with a single-executive presidential system. This put an end to the formal supremacy of the legislature in Uruguayan politics.

A long-term process that intensified after 1966 and contributed to the breakdown of the democratic regime was, to use one of Juan Linz's concepts, an "abdication of democratic authenticity" by the Uruguayan legislature. Linz notes that this happens when democratic leaders, rather than taking responsibility for resolving intractable problems, postpone such tasks or delegate them to the executive or a technocratic elite or to such neutral bodies as the judiciary or the military. It often leads to a concentration of power in the executive and to an erosion of the "authenticity" of the nation's formal democratic institutions. The failure of the Uruguayan party leadership to respond to the economic crisis, its preoccupation with clientelistic politics over innovative policymaking, and its resort to the restoration of executive power as a means to resolving the crisis, are examples of that phenomenon.

The restoration of executive power after 1966 accelerated the abdication of democratic authenticity by the Uruguayan legislature. This was not a result of the constitutional reforms themselves, which provided for congressional oversight over the executive branch. Rather, it resulted from legislative inaction before a deliberate arrogation of power by the executive branch, and the growing influence of the military over the policymaking process.

Executive Arrogation of Power and the Militarization of Politics

The presidency of Jorge Pacheco Areco saw a marked increase in political unrest, strike activity, and violence. One of the more visible and destabilizing challenges to the constitutional regime came from the urban guerrilla group, the Tupamaros. The Pacheco government responded to protests and guerrilla violence with an unprecedented degree of repression. One week after he assumed office, President Pacheco outlawed a number of leftist parties. He also ordered the closing of two newspapers, *El Sol* and *El Día*, thus reversing Uruguay's long free-press tradition. In mid-1968 President Pacheco declared a limited state of siege, invoking his constitutional power to institute *Medidas Prontas de Seguridad* (Prompt Security Measures). The *Medidas*, which were to be used repeatedly by the president, permitted the government to suspend constitutional guarantees, impose censorship measures, and carry out arrests and searches of suspected subversives. Between 1968 and the 1973 coup, they became a regular weapon the executive used to silence the press and to intimidate the opposition.

While the Congress had the power to nullify the *Medidas*, it rarely did so. At times this was due to successful parliamentary maneuvering by the president. At other times it was due to direct intimidation of the Congress. In 1969 the Congress attempted to rescind an executive order conscripting striking bank workers into the armed forces. Following a threat from the government's defense minister, who claimed to be speaking on behalf of the armed forces, the

Congress acquiesced to the president's action. The effect of these actions was to further remove the legislature from effective oversight of key policy decisions.

Subsequently, the president used his special security powers and ruled by decree throughout the remainder of his term. The Congress also agreed to suspend constitutional liberties for extended periods on two occasions. One of these followed the assassination by Tupamaro guerrillas of Dan Mitrione, a USAID official working with the Uruguayan police. During the later part of President Pacheco's tenure, torture and brutality against dissidents by the military and the police increased.

A critical turning point in the political process occurred in September 1971 when the president agreed to transfer the responsibility for dealing with the urban guerrillas from the police to the military. The government declared the existence of a state of "internal war." For captured suspects, military justice would be formally substituted for civil procedures and protections.

With this action the government surrendered its constitutional responsibility for the maintenance of order to the armed forces. By subordinating constitutional procedures to military justice in the battle against the Tupamaro guerrillas, it severely eroded the legitimacy of the regime's legal norms and institutions. Most importantly, it gave unquestioned control over the resolution of a vital political issue to the armed forces. The defeat of the Tupamaros strengthened the perception in the military and society that the armed forces were better able to resolve pressing political problems than the civilian leadership. Following the elimination of the Tupamaro threat, military control was extended to other governmental functions, culminating in the presidency itself. The concentration of power in the executive branch and the militarization of the nation's political institutions entered their final phase during the presidency of Juan Maria Bordaberry. The government maintained its repression against the press and the opposition. Military influence over the political decision-making process, veto power over presidential decisions, and defiance of congressional authority were exercised far more openly than they had been in the past. Attempts by Congress to question the military's role in political affairs were met by the imprisonment and harassment of congressional leaders.

In February 1973 elements of the armed forces rebelled against the constitutional government. In the negotiations that followed, President Bordaberry agreed to the formation of a National Security Council (COSENA), whose members would include the chiefs of the three military branches, to oversee government policy. This represented the formal elevation of the armed services to the highest levels of the executive branch of government. On 27 June, following a series of congressional challenges to the president and the armed forces, President Bordaberry announced the closing of Congress and the formal imposition of authoritarian rule over Uruguay.

Conclusion

The case of Uruguay provides a demonstration of how even a highly institutionalized democratic regime can lose legitimacy and give way to authoritarian

political alternatives. In contrast to the Chilean case, where democratic institutions were a major arena for the political struggle, in Uruguay by the end of the 1960s they were almost irrelevant to the political process. Political initiative was located, first, in violent opposition from civil society, and later, in an increasingly militarized executive branch.

The events that led to that situation took place over a long period of time and had their roots in the political system's inability to reverse the country's economic deterioration. However, after 1967, a more rapid and dialectical process of abdication and conquest between the legislative and executive branches of government took place. Congressional acquiescence before presidential indifference to constitutional guarantees and institutions constituted a major failure in the exercise of legislative oversight of the executive branch. In part it resulted from the feeling of helplessness by the democratically accountable leadership before the intractability of the country's problems. The temptation, therefore, to give the executive branch free rein in the pursuit of solutions was almost irresistible. But it soon resulted in a dramatic shift in the balance of power between the two branches that, when finally challenged by the congressional leadership, resulted in the closing of Congress itself. The Uruguayan case provides a potent lesson of the dangers of congressional abdication of its constitutional authority.

Another important lesson the Uruguayan case provides is the danger of authoritarian responses by democratic leaders to an armed and violent opposition. The government's decision permitting the military to dispense with constitutional procedures and guarantees in the struggle against the Tupamaro guerrillas constituted an abnegation of civilian supremacy over the armed forces and an erosion of the integrity of the constitutional system. It was, ironically, a major step toward the Tupamaros' objective of discrediting and overturning the constitutional regime. Furthermore, it advanced the process of military encroachment on political decision making. This process was more incremental than planned. It reflected a changing consensus within the military on its national role, as civilian leaders turned increasingly to it for help in resolving political problems. It ultimately forged a consensus within the military and much of society on the ineffectiveness of civilian constitutional rule.

Annotated Bibliography

Gillespie, Charles. "The Breakdown of Democracy in Uruguay: Alternative Political Models," Working Paper no. 143, Latin American Program, Washington, D.C.: The Wilson Center, 1984. In a very useful article, Gillespie analyzes and criticizes several models of the Uruguayan political system, as well as interpretations by different authors of events leading up to the 1973 breakdown. He also provides his own hypotheses of the breakdown of democracy in Uruguay, drawing on theoretical work by Juan Linz.

Kaufman, Edy. *Uruguay in Transition: From Civilian to Military Rule*. New Brunswick: Transaction Books, 1979. This book examines the several facets of the gradual dissolution of civilian government in Uruguay.

McDonald, Ronald H. "Electoral Politics and Uruguayan Political Decay," *Inter-American Economic Affairs* 26 (Summer 1972): 23-45. In this article McDonald advances

the notion that Uruguay's political system underwent a process of political decay (or deinstitutionalization) during the 1950s and 1960s. His article is highly useful for highlighting the institutional roots of the breakdown of the Uruguayan regime, and read in tandem with the next article, provides a balanced picture of that process.

McDonald, Ronald H. "The Rise of Military Politics in Uruguay," *Inter-American Economic Affairs* 28 (Spring 1975): 23-45. In this article McDonald provides an analysis of the incremental process of the military taking control of Uruguay's political system, particularly during the period from 1967 to 1973.

Weinstein, Martin. *Uruguay: The Politics of Failure*. Westport: Greenwood Press, 1975. Weinstein provides one of the few book-length treatments in the English language of politics in Uruguay from the days of Batlle y Ordóñez to the breakdown of democracy in 1973. Weinstein pays particular attention to the role of ideology in shaping the Uruguayan political system, to the dynamics of institutional development, and to their interrelation with class and political power in Uruguay.

ARGENTINA, 1976: The Limits of Charismatic Authority

Chronology of Key Events

MAY 1969: Massive antigovernment demonstrations and riots in the city of Córdoba weaken the three-year-old military government of General Juan Carlos Onganía and start a long process of transition to constitutional government.

OCTOBER 1972: Juan Perón returns briefly to Argentina, after eighteen years in exile, to prepare the groundwork for Peronist strategies in upcoming presidential elections.

MARCH 1973: Peronist candidate Hector Cámpora wins the presidential election. Less than two months later he resigns from the presidency to open the way for new elections with Perón as a presidential candidate. Political violence intensifies.

OCTOBER 1973: Juan Perón is sworn in as president.

JULY 1974: Juan Perón dies in office. His vice-president, Isabel Perón, is sworn in as president. Violence, particularly between Peronist factions, escalates dramatically.

MID-1975: Following intense pressure from labor and the Congress, Isabel Perón abandons her austerity program and removes her close advisor, José López Rega, from office. She requests a temporary leave of absence from the presidency, but returns shortly thereafter.

MARCH 1976: The armed forces overthrow the Peronist government.

Introduction

The March 1976 overthrow of the constitutional government of Isabel Perón met with little effective opposition from Argentine society. The unifying power

of General Juan Perón's charismatic authority had failed to lay the foundations for democratic governance. In large measure this was due to the violent polarization of Argentine society, which made conciliation and compromise through institutional channels almost impossible. Yet it was also in large measure due to the failure of the constitutional leadership to strengthen the mechanisms of democratic decision making during the brief period of consensus prior to Perón's death. The assault on constitutional procedures effected by the chaotic government of Isabel Perón completed the delegitimation of the constitutional regime.

General Perón's personalistic style of rule prevented such democratic institutions as the Congress and political parties from playing a meaningful role in the political process, and prevented these institutions from becoming sources of civilian authority that could provide continuity for the regime after Perón's death. Perón's disappearance created a power vacuum in the government and led to a significant escalation of political violence. The government's own involvement in the violence, both through its association with right-wing paramilitary groups and its abdication of supervision over the armed forces' campaign against the guerrilla opposition, severely eroded the legitimacy of the democratic regime. Also, the manifest incompetence of the president, her reliance on antidemocratic elements for support, her government's inability to put an end to the political and economic chaos, and the lack of an obvious democratic alternative created widespread support for the overthrow of the democratic regime by the Argentine armed forces.

Prelude to the Peronist Government

Prospects for the consolidation of a democratic regime in the early 1970s were clouded by institutional and normative weaknesses in Argentina's democratic policy. Eighteen years of Peronist political proscription and military intervention had severely delegitimized democratic procedures and the elites associated with them. The installation of constitutional government in 1973 was thus less a result of public clamor for democratic rule than it was of the general desire for the return of the harmony, progress, and authority of the early Peronist era.

Those eighteen years had also eroded the role and influence of political parties. They prevented parties from gaining experience in governing and mediating the conflicts of civil society and placed them under the control of a detached, aging elite, prone to conspiracy-mongering and military intrigue.

Finally, political parties had played a very limited role in the transition from military-authoritarian rule. The pressures that led to the military's departure came from highly activated groups in civil society—labor, student groups, violent opposition groups. The military's departure was also marked by intense popular mobilization, most of which lay beyond the control of political party elites. The locus of political initiative during the transition lay outside the party system: in civil society and in secret negotiations between Perón and military

leaders. The elites committed to the country's formal democratic institutions played almost no role in the events leading to the breakdown of the regime.

Juan Perón in Power

An interesting feature of the Peronist party that came to power in 1973 was that its most important factions were disloyal, or, at best, semi-loyal, to democratic forms of government. Also, these factions—labor, *montonero* youth/guerrilla organizations, and right-wing groups—possessed the bulk of the Peronist movement's power resources. Political party leaders, after years of proscription, had little actual influence in the movement. Under such conditions, the task of democratic consolidation required the formal subordination of all sectors to the party leadership and the strengthening of the legislature's role in the policymaking process. However, specific decisions by President Perón and his style of government prevented a transfer of authority to the regime's formal democratic institutions.

Perón's choice of his politically inexperienced wife as his vice-presidential running mate exposed both a lack of confidence in his political party and a preference for personalistic politics over the building of a viable democratic regime. Given his age and poor health and the availability of relatively qualified individuals from his political cadre, his selection was particularly injurious to the party and the regime. It further eroded the party leadership's prestige within the movement, and prevented it from providing democratic continuity to Peronist rule after Perón's departure. Equally important, it consigned a highly volatile country to rule by an ill-equipped and inexperienced president in the likely event that Perón would not survive till the end of his term.

Perón's governing style also hampered the consolidation of democratic institutions. Most important policy decisions were made by the old *caudillo*. There was little consultation with the leadership of the party or the legislature. Interparty collaboration in the policymaking process was largely limited to the close personal relationship that developed between Perón and the leader of the Radical Party, Ricardo Balbín. This relationship was not reflected in meaningful collaboration at the congressional level between officials of the two parties.

Juan Perón sought to restore unity and order to Argentine society through the forging of a multiclass coalition known as the *Pacto Social*. While this device succeeded in producing a temporary consensus between management and labor and in reducing inflation and restoring economic growth, its major flaw was that its sole unifying force was the charismatic authority of Juan Perón. The Peronist party played almost no role in the *pacto social*. As a result no common institutional arena for conflict resolution and negotiation between diverse social sectors had been created to provide continuity for the goals of the *pacto social* after Perón's death.

Another decision by Perón that would cause serious problems for the democratic regime was his preelectoral strategy of encouraging the growth of the violent *montonero* movement. While the *montoneros* were a useful power

resource against the military and non-Peronist opposition, they became a serious liability to Perón in office. Their political agitation and guerrilla activities (which Perón condemned once he took office) intensified the climate of violence and instability. They were a major destabilizing force during the tenure of the government of Isabel Perón, and they generated violent countermeasures by the state and by right-wing paramilitary groups.

The Breakdown of the Regime

The vacuum left by Perón's death unleashed a violent struggle in the Peronist movement for control of the government. The erosive effect this had on the stability of the democratic regime was compounded by the visible ineffectiveness of the president, and by the government's own indifference to constitutional procedures.

Shortly after Perón's death the office of the presidency came under the control of right-wing authoritarian elements of the movement, led by Social Welfare Minister José López Rega. They made full use of paramilitary squads to assassinate their opponents in political society, the labor movement, and other sectors of civil society. The government also granted *carte blanche* to the military in its war against the guerrilla opposition. That decision formed part of a larger strategy of organizing the armed forces as a pillar of support for the government—support that would counter opposition from an activated labor movement and a weak yet recalcitrant party leadership. A pro-Peronist officer was appointed chief of staff of the armed forces, and another was elevated to the cabinet.

These decisions, however, ultimately led to the fall of the government. Congressional action taken against López Rega's prominence in the government, coupled with protest from labor and other sectors, forced his removal and left the president politically isolated. Furthermore, the blatant attempts to politicize the armed forces sparked a rebellion by "professionalist" elements in the military that led to the removal of military officers from the government and the appointment of a new military chief of staff, General Jorge Rafael Videla. The military subsequently withdrew from all involvement in political affairs. It was to maintain that posture until the government's loss of power and the disintegration of the political process had reached the stage where a majority of the population welcomed the restoration of order by a military regime.

Conclusion

The breakdown of Argentine democracy in 1976 provides an example of the difficulty of establishing democratic legitimacy under conditions of social violence and polarization. Yet an ironic element in this case is that the regime was inaugurated under the highly unifying and charismatic leadership of Juan Perón. It thus possessed an advantage that few new democracies have had the

privilege to enjoy: the loyalty of large segments of the population to the head of government during the first difficult stages of democratic consolidation. However, Perón failed to impart the authority and legitimacy of his leadership to the nation's democratic institutions. This would have been a critical requirement for Argentina's democratic consolidation in the early 1970s and the only prospect for a democratic outcome to the political conflicts of the period. Perón's personalistic style of rule and his neglect of the party and the country's formal democratic institutions ensured that almost no authority would be vested in those sectors with an interest in the continuation of democratic rule after his death. In a sense, the Argentine experience from 1973 to 1976 provides important lessons in how the dynamic personal leadership of a head of state can hinder the consolidation of democratic procedures and institutions. These are lessons that should not be lost on the leadership of future democratic regimes in Argentina.

While Juan Perón had been instrumental in hindering the development of firm democratic foundations in Argentina, his wife's government ensured that the process of democratic delegitimization would complete its course. Her weakness as a chief executive contributed to a major loss of public support for the regime. Furthermore, her government's obvious disregard for constitutional procedures and guarantees, and its gradual takeover by authoritarian elements within the Peronist movement, added an air of illegality to ineffectual rule. By March 1976 the government had lost all legitimacy, and the democratic leadership in political society lacked any power to resolve the crisis through constitutional means. This left a void that was quickly and effectively filled by the armed forces.

Annotated Bibliography

- Cavarozzi, Marcelo. *Autoritarismo y Democracia, 1955-1983*. Buenos Aires: Centro Editor de América Latina, S.A., 1983. This book provides a short analytical treatment of Argentine politics after the 1955 overthrow of Perón. Cavarozzi analyzes the evolving patterns of military intervention, the authoritarian tendencies in Argentine civil society, and the difficulties of consolidating the norms and institutions of democracy in Argentina.
- Crawley, Eduardo. *A House Divided: Argentina 1880-1980*. London: C. Hurst and Company, 1984. Crawley provides a detailed and enjoyably written journalistic account of Argentine politics over the last century.
- De Riz, Liliana. *Retorno y Derrumbe: El último gobierno peronista*. Mexico: Folios Ediciones, S.A., 1981. This is a book-length treatment of the rise and fall of the second Peronist government. De Riz provides a strong focus on the intersectoral conflict that contributed to the breakdown of the regime.
- Rouquié, Alain, and Jorge Schwarzer, eds. *¿Cómo renacen las democracias? Buenos Aires: Emecé Editores, 1985*. This is a collection of essays focusing extensively on Argentine politics and the problems of democratic consolidation. Of particular interest is Ricardo Sidicaro's essay on the erosion of Argentina's party system over the last twenty years, entitled "¿Es posible la democracia en Argentina?"

GRENADA, 1979: The Ouster of Personalistic Rule

Chronology of Key Events

MARCH 1951: The Grenada People's Party (later changed to the Grenada United Labor Party), led by Eric Gairy, wins 71 percent of the vote in legislative elections and captures six of eight seats on the Legislative Council.

MARCH 1973: The New Jewel Movement (NJM) is formed by the merger of the Movement for Assemblies of the People, founded by Maurice Bishop, and Joint Endeavor for Welfare, Education, and Liberation (JEWEL).

NOVEMBER 1973-JANUARY 1974: Widespread anti-Gairy strikes and demonstrations are held on the eve of Grenadian independence from Great Britain. Uprisings are crushed by Gairy's police forces.

FEBRUARY 1974: Grenada becomes an independent nation with Eric Gairy as prime minister.

DECEMBER 1976: Maurice Bishop is elected to Parliament and becomes the leader of the opposition.

MARCH 1979: Maurice Bishop and the New Jewel Movement seize power in a coup. Shortly thereafter the suspension of the 1974 constitution is announced.

Introduction

The 1979 overthrow of the government of Eric Gairy by Grenada's New Jewel Movement represents a rare instance of regime breakdown in the English-speaking Caribbean. Grenada shares with the other British West Indian Islands a historical legacy of affiliation with English forms of constitutionalist government. It also shares with many of those countries a history of personalistic leadership by populist figures who have led their people from colonial rule to independence. Eric Gairy introduced Grenada to the era of mass politics. He built a strong base of support among the poor and disenfranchised that gave him decisive electoral majorities and solidified his control over the Grenadian polity. However, his increasingly repressive, corrupt, and inefficient rule alienated many in the middle and educated classes. His ability to legitimize and perpetuate his rule through such democratic mechanisms as elections discredited parliamentary procedures among his opponents, who were unable to compete with him in the electoral arena. Furthermore, it convinced his more radical middle-class opponents, particularly in the New Jewel Movement, of the need to develop alternative political structures to mobilize the masses and to build new bases of support for their leadership. These young opposition leaders successfully utilized the few functional elements of Grenada's formal

democratic system to make their case against Gairy and to crystallize support for an alternative to his authoritarian rule. Yet they quickly and easily dispensed with these democratic elements upon assuming power, and they sought instead to establish a new revolutionary order.

The Emergence and Decay of Personalistic Rule

Prior to Eric Gairy's emergence on the political scene, Grenadian politics was largely restricted to the activities of a small group of "parties of notables." The franchise excluded much of the uneducated majority, and political leaders made little effort to reach the mass of poor, mostly dark-skinned blacks that worked on plantations or scratched out an existence on small plots of land. Gairy launched his political career in Grenada as a trade union organizer. In 1950 and 1951 he organized a series of strikes and demonstrations that produced major wage increases for factory and estate workers. In 1951, with the introduction of universal suffrage, Gairy's political party swept the legislative elections, which gave him majority control of the legislative council. Thus was inaugurated a prolonged period of almost complete dominance of Grenadian political life by Eric Gairy. Peasants and plantation workers, previously ignored by the political leadership, would constitute the key to his political power. They would grant him an immense advantage over other middle-class political leaders who, unsuited to the imperatives of mass political mobilization, would provide him with little effective electoral competition.

The emergence of Gairy's personalistic leadership paralleled that of other West Indian leaders, such as Eric Williams of Trinidad. However, Gairy's leadership differed from that of his West Indian counterparts in one crucial respect. In over two decades in power, he did not institutionalize his rule through systematic organization or ideology, but relied instead on direct personal appeal. Toward the latter half of his rule he was to resort increasingly to repression against his opponents, particularly through the instrument of the "Mongoose Gang," a police force personally loyal to him.

Gairy's personalistic and repressive style of rule gradually alienated many in the middle classes who were excluded from the political process and suffered from his corrupt and inefficient economic management. Yet organized opposition to Gairy consisted of small circles of disaffected intellectuals and an aging and uninspiring political leadership that lacked the means to remove him from office constitutionally. This fact was dramatized by elections held in 1972, when Gairy soundly defeated an alliance of traditional and radical political forces.

Disaffection with Gairy in the middle class was vividly manifested by large antigovernment strikes and demonstrations in late 1973 and early 1974, on the eve of Grenadian independence. The uprisings were brutally crushed by Gairy, and this accelerated the radicalization of the opposition, particularly the youthful leaders of what would become known as the New Jewel Movement (NJM).

Gairy's rule also led ultimately to a deep discrediting of parliamentary forms of government among many of his most dynamic opponents. His systematic abuse of constitutional procedures, and the lack of any real constitutional alternative to his government, gave opposition forces little faith in parliamentary procedures as a way of redressing the country's deep injustices. The fact that Gairy was able to use his support among the poor majority to legitimize and perpetuate his rule through electoral procedures intensified their disdain for those procedures. This was particularly the case among Gairy's youthful opposition in the New Jewel Movement. The NJM's leaders, mainly middle-class in origin, were heavily influenced by the black power and antiwar struggles in the United States and Europe, and by the efforts of Third World leaders to build socialist alternatives to liberal democracy and capitalism. Gairy's electoral hold over the poor majority to which the NJM's leaders sought to appeal convinced them of the need to build alternative political structures to reach the masses and mobilize them into a new base of support for their leadership.

However, it is important to note that the ability of the NJM's leadership to build a strong base of support among the middle and educated classes in the mid-1970s was in large measure a result of the political space provided by the existence of formal democratic institutions that remained functional under Gairy's despotic rule. These institutions included the court system and the legislature.

Grenada shares with other West Indian countries a common appeals court system. This arrangement assured that, even under Gairy, Grenada would have a relatively independent judiciary. The NJM's leaders, many of them trained and highly skilled barristers, repeatedly used the court system to embarrass and attack the Gairy government. The independent judiciary became an important weapon for the NJM and its allies in the struggle against Gairy.

In the 1976 elections a coalition headed by the NJM won several legislative seats and formed for the first time an effective minority opposition in the legislative council. Maurice Bishop, a charismatic leader within the NJM, became the leader of the parliamentary opposition. The legislative council became a highly effective forum for Bishop and the NJM to make their case against the Gairy government, and the council was eventually critical to the NJM's strategy of generating public support for Gairy's removal. By 1979 Gairy's repression, corruption, and growing proclivity toward mysticism had eliminated most of his support among the middle classes. Also, in contrast to previous periods, the formal opposition now provided the Grenadian public with an attractive alternative to Gairy's rule in the New Jewel Movement. In March 1979, while Gairy was on an official overseas visit, the New Jewel Movement seized power. The coup was greeted with widespread support and celebration. In spite of assurances by the new leadership of a quick return to constitutional rule, the constitutional system was disbanded and a new revolutionary order was established in its place.

Conclusion

Although Eric Gairy ushered in the era of mass politics in Grenada, his style of rule prevented its evolution into a stable democratic order. The tight control he exercised over political power excluded many in the educated middle class from the political process. Deprived of the possibility of influencing political decisions either through an institutional structure led by Gairy or as a loyal opposition, the more dynamic elements moved into a position of disloyalty to the constitutional regime. Also, Gairy's strong electoral hold over the poor majority created resentment among his middle-class NJM opponents, who intended to appeal to that majority, and who came to view the parliamentary system as a mere instrument of demagogic control of the masses.

The ease with which the New Jewel Movement dispensed with the country's democratic institutions in a region strongly influenced by a common constitutional heritage attests to the erosive effect of Gairy's rule on Grenada's polity. His failure to institutionalize his charismatic leadership stands in contrast to the record of other personalistic leaders in the region who helped to consolidate viable democratic systems.

Nevertheless, the Grenada case also demonstrates the power of democratic institutions to provide political space to oppositions in their struggles against an authoritarian ruler. In the Grenadian case the NJM eventually used that space to overturn the constitutional system. Yet its lessons should not be lost on democratic oppositions laboring under authoritarian conditions where some elements of democratic procedure continue to exist.

Annotated Bibliography

- Dunn, Peter, and Bruce Watson, eds. *American Intervention in Grenada: The Implications of Operation "Urgent Fury."* Boulder and London: Westview Press, 1985. This is a collection of essays, widely focusing on the origins, execution, and implications of the U.S. military intervention in Grenada. It also contains a number of essays on the internal dynamics of Grenadian politics during the period of NJM's rule and the period preceding it.
- Sandford, Gregory, and Richard Vigilante. *Grenada: The Untold Story.* New York: Madison Books, 1984. This book provides a conservatively biased yet detailed interpretation of Grenadian politics before and during the NJM revolutionary period. Much of its primary resource material consists of documents captured by U.S. forces during the U.S. intervention.
- O'Shaughnessy, Hugh. *Grenada: Revolution, Invasion and Aftermath.* London: Hamish Hamilton, 1984. O'Shaughnessy provides a critical yet generally sympathetic portrait of Maurice Bishop, as well as a negative assessment of the U.S. invasion of the island in this book-length treatment of Grenadian politics before and during the revolution.
- Singham, A. W. *The Hero and the Crowd in a Colonial Polity.* New Haven: Yale University Press, 1968. Singham provides an interesting examination of Grenadian politics under colonial rule as a case study of political development in colonial polities.

Also of interest to Singham are the dynamics of charismatic leadership in such politics and Gairy's personalistic appeal in particular.

Notes

1. The concepts of "loyal" and "disloyal" oppositions are taken from Juan Linz, *Crisis, Breakdown, and Reequilibrium*. (Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978). Other references to Linz are from this work.
2. *Ibid.*, pp. 33-34.
3. Robert Potash, *The Army and Politics in Argentina, 1945-1962* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1980), p. 364.
4. Gary Wrynia, *Argentina in the Post-War Era: Politics and Economic Policy Making in a Divided Society* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1978), p. 120.
5. Alain Rouquié, *Poder militar y sociedad política en la Argentina* (Buenos Aires: Emecé Editores, 1978), p. 247.
6. Alfred Stepan, *The Military in Politics: Changing Patterns in Brazil* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1971).
7. Paul E. Sigmund, *The Overthrow of Allende and the Politics of Chile, 1964-1976* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1977), p. 170.
8. Linz, *Crisis, Breakdown, and Reequilibrium*.